CAPSTONE: SPECTRAL METHODS FOR VARIATIONAL QUANTUM LINEAR SOLVERS

ADILET AKIMSHE

Abstract. We investigate how the choice of polynomial basis in spectral collocation methods affects the Pauli term count of the resulting system matrix in Variational Quantum Linear Solvers (VQLS). Solving linear systems is fundamental to scientific computing, and VQLS offers a promising near-term quantum approach compatible with Noisy Intermediate-Scale Quantum (NISQ) devices. A key bottleneck in VQLS efficiency is the Pauli term count in the decomposition of the system matrix, which directly determines measurement overhead and circuit complexity. Through a sequence of four numerical experiments on second-order ordinary differential equations, we show that the standard monomial (Case A) basis saturates all 4^n available Pauli strings for an n-qubit system, while a basis-change identity reduces this problem to a linear program (LP) over the collocation matrix. The global LP always recovers the identity matrix $M^* = I_N$ as the unique optimum—a single Pauli string regardless of the differential operator, domain, or boundary conditions—but this collapses the quantum problem into a classically trivial state-preparation task. A *monic LP* variant, restricting the basis to lower-triangular coefficient matrices with unit diagonal, provides a principled middle ground: it reduces Hadamard-test overhead by factors of 3–7$\times$ while preserving a non-trivial quantum system. These results sharply characterize the trade-off between Pauli efficiency and quantum non-triviality in collocation-based quantum linear solvers.

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Supervisor: Dr. Alejandro Javier Castro Castilla. Second reader: Dr. Adilet Otemissov.

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1. Introduction

Quantum computers represent a paradigm shift in computational technology, leveraging the principles of quantum mechanics to process information in fundamentally different ways than classical computers. Unlike classical bits that exist in definite states of 0 or 1, quantum bits (qubits) can exist in superpositions of states, enabling quantum algorithms to explore multiple solution paths simultaneously. This property, combined with quantum entanglement and interference, allows quantum computers to potentially solve certain problems exponentially faster than their classical counterparts [1, 2].

The development of quantum algorithms for solving linear systems of equations has garnered significant attention, as linear algebra problems form the backbone of scientific computing, machine learning, and optimization. In particular, quantum spectral methods have emerged as a powerful approach for solving differential equations with complexity that scales only poly-logarithmically in the system dimension [14]. Recent work has also applied quantum algorithms to nonlinear differential equations such as the cubic Schrödinger equation [16]. Variational Quantum Linear Solvers (VQLS) represent a promising near-term approach that is compatible with current Noisy Intermediate-Scale Quantum (NISQ) devices.

1.1. History.

The concept of quantum computing was first proposed by Richard Feynman in 1982, who suggested that quantum systems could be simulated more efficiently using quantum computers rather than classical ones [1]. David Deutsch formalized this idea in 1985 by describing a universal quantum computer. The field gained significant momentum in 1994 when Peter Shor developed his landmark algorithm for integer factorization [4], demonstrating an exponential speedup over the best known classical methods. Two years later, Lov Grover introduced a quantum search algorithm that finds a marked item in an unsorted database of N entries in $O(\sqrt{N})$ queries—a quadratic speedup over any classical strategy [5]. Together, Shor's and Grover's algorithms remain the canonical examples of provable quantum advantage. In recent years, the focus has shifted toward NISQ devices and variational quantum algorithms such as VQE and VQLS, designed to work within the constraints of current hardware limited by decoherence and gate errors [2, 7].

2. Preliminaries

This section provides the foundational concepts necessary to understand the application of spectral methods to variational quantum linear solvers. Readers seeking an accessible video introduction are encouraged to consult the lecture series by Watrous [11].

Classical computers process information as bits—definite states of 0 or 1—using logic gates that are generally **irreversible**: the output does not uniquely determine the input (e.g., an AND gate outputting 0 could have received inputs 00, 01, or 10), so information is permanently lost. Quantum gates, by contrast, are represented by unitary matrices and are therefore **reversible**: given the output and the gate, the input can always be recovered. This unitarity requirement also forbids copying qubits (no-cloning theorem) or fanning wires in the way classical circuits do.

2.1. Qubits.

A qubit (quantum bit) is the fundamental unit of quantum information. Unlike classical bits, qubits can exist in superposition states—simultaneously being in both 0 and 1 states with certain probability amplitudes.

Mathematically, a qubit state is represented as a vector in a two-dimensional complex Hilbert space:

$$|\psi\rangle = \alpha|0\rangle + \beta|1\rangle \tag{1}$$

where α and β are complex amplitudes satisfying the normalization condition $|\alpha|^2 + |\beta|^2 = 1$ [1, 6]. The states $|0\rangle$ and $|1\rangle$ form an orthonormal basis (also called the computational basis), corresponding to the classical bit values.

When measured in the computational basis, the qubit collapses to either $|0\rangle$ with probability $|\alpha|^2$ or $|1\rangle$ with probability $|\beta|^2$. This measurement is probabilistic and irreversible—after measurement, the superposition is destroyed. For instance, a qubit in the state

$$|+\rangle = \frac{1}{\sqrt{2}}|0\rangle + \frac{1}{\sqrt{2}}|1\rangle \tag{2}$$

yields 0 or 1 with equal probability (50% each) when measured.

The Bloch Sphere: Any qubit state can be parameterized as:

$$|\psi\rangle = \cos\frac{\theta}{2}|0\rangle + e^{i\phi}\sin\frac{\theta}{2}|1\rangle \tag{3}$$

where θ and ϕ are real numbers defining a point on the unit three-dimensional sphere (see Figure 1). This representation, called the Bloch sphere, provides an excellent visualization tool for single-qubit states and operations. The north pole represents $|0\rangle$, the south pole represents $|1\rangle$, and points on the equator represent equal superpositions with different relative phases [1, 2]. A thorough introduction to qubits and the Bloch sphere is given in Section 1.2 of [1]; Chapter 3 of [2] offers a more applied perspective.

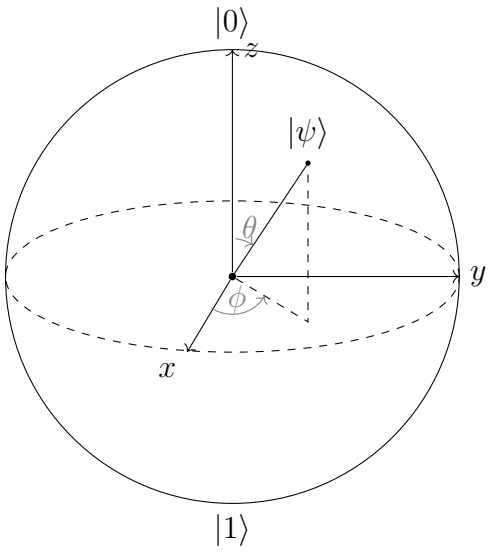


FIGURE 1. Bloch sphere representation of a qubit. The state $|\psi\rangle$ is represented as a point on the surface of a unit sphere, parameterized by angles θ and ϕ.

Information content: While the Bloch sphere has infinitely many points (suggesting infinite information storage), measurement reveals only a single classical bit. The continuous parameters α and β can only be determined from infinitely many measurements of identically prepared qubits. Nature appears to keep track

of this "hidden information" during quantum evolution, and this hidden quantum information grows exponentially with the number of qubits.

2.2. **Quantum gates.** Quantum gates are unitary operations that manipulate qubit states. Unlike classical gates, quantum gates are **reversible**—given the output and the gate operation, the input can always be determined. This reversibility is expressed mathematically by the unitarity constraint: for a gate represented by matrix U, we have $U^\dagger U = I$, where $U^\dagger$ is the conjugate transpose and I is the identity matrix [1, 6].

Single-qubit gates:

The quantum gates act linearly on superposition states. For example, if we define the Pauli-X (or simply X) gate by its action on basis states, it automatically defines its action on superpositions: $X(\alpha|0\rangle + \beta|1\rangle) = \alpha|1\rangle + \beta|0\rangle$.

Pauli-X gate: The quantum analog of the NOT gate, with matrix representation:

$$X = \begin{pmatrix} 0 & 1 \\ 1 & 0 \end{pmatrix} \tag{4}$$

It flips $|0\rangle$ to $|1\rangle$ and vice versa.

Pauli-Z gate: Leaves $|0\rangle$ unchanged but flips the sign of $|1\rangle$:

$$Z = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 \\ 0 & -1 \end{pmatrix} \tag{5}$$

Pauli-Y gate: Combines a bit flip with a phase flip:

$$Y = \begin{pmatrix} 0 & -i \\ i & 0 \end{pmatrix} \tag{6}$$

The three gates X, Y, Z together form the Pauli matrices discussed in the Pauli matrices subsection below.

Hadamard gate (H): Creates equal superposition and is crucial for quantum algorithms:

$$H = \frac{1}{\sqrt{2}} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 \\ 1 & -1 \end{pmatrix} \tag{7}$$

It transforms: $H|0\rangle = \frac{1}{\sqrt{2}}(|0\rangle + |1\rangle) = |+\rangle$ and $H|1\rangle = \frac{1}{\sqrt{2}}(|0\rangle - |1\rangle) = |-\rangle$. The Hadamard gate is sometimes described as a "square-root of NOT" gate. Notably, $H^2 = I$, so applying H twice returns the original state.

On the Bloch sphere, single-qubit gates correspond to rotations and reflections. The Hadamard operation is a rotation about the $\hat{y}$ axis by 90°, followed by a rotation about the $\hat{x}$ axis by 180°.

Phase gates (S, T): Apply phase shifts to the $|1\rangle$ component.

Rotation gates: $R_x(\theta)$, $R_y(\theta)$, $R_z(\theta)$ perform rotations around respective axes on the Bloch sphere by angle θ.

Two-qubit gates:

CNOT (Controlled-NOT): The prototypical multi-qubit gate. It flips the target qubit if and only if the control qubit is $|1\rangle$: $|A, B\rangle \to |A, B \oplus A\rangle$, where $\oplus$ is XOR. For the full matrix representation and circuit diagram see Chapter 4 of [1].

CZ (Controlled-Z): Applies a phase flip to the target qubit if the control is $|1\rangle$.

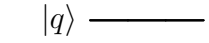
Controlled-U gates: More generally, for any unitary U acting on n qubits, we can define a controlled-U gate with one control qubit. If the control is $|0\rangle$, nothing happens; if it's $|1\rangle$, U is applied to the target qubits.

Universality: A fundamental result in quantum computing is that **any multiple qubit logic gate may be composed from CNOT and single-qubit gates**. This is the quantum analog of the universality of the NAND gate in classical computing. In fact, we only need certain specific single-qubit rotations (not arbitrary angles) to achieve universal quantum computation—we can build arbitrarily good approximations to any quantum gate using a finite set of fixed gates [1]. Detailed proofs of universality and a complete treatment of single- and multi-qubit gates appear in Chapter 4 of [1]; Chapter 4 of [3] provides a complementary exposition.

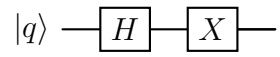
No-Cloning Theorem: Unlike classical bits, qubits cannot be copied: it is impossible to create a quantum circuit that takes an unknown state $|\psi\rangle$ and produces two copies $|\psi\rangle|\psi\rangle$. This fundamental limitation has profound implications for quantum information processing [1, 3].

2.3. **Quantum circuit.** A quantum circuit is a sequence of quantum gates applied to a set of qubits, analogous to classical circuits but with crucial differences [1, 9]. Quantum circuits are represented by circuit diagrams where:

- Horizontal lines represent qubit wires (time flows left to right):



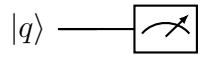
- Boxes or symbols represent quantum gates:



- Double lines represent classical bits (measurement outcomes):



- Measurement is represented by a meter symbol:



Quantum circuits must:

(1) Initialize qubits in a known state (typically $|0\rangle$)
(2) Apply a sequence of unitary quantum gates
(3) Perform measurements to extract classical information

Quantum circuits are **read from left to right**. The state of an n-qubit system is described by a vector in a 2^n-dimensional Hilbert space. After applying gates $U_1, U_2, \ldots, U_m$ to an initial state $|\psi_0\rangle$, the final state is:

$$|\psi_f\rangle = U_m \cdots U_2 U_1 |\psi_0\rangle \tag{8}$$

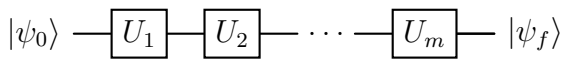


FIGURE 2. A generic quantum circuit applying gates $U_1, U_2, \ldots, U_m$ in sequence to an initial state $|\psi_0\rangle$, producing the final state $|\psi_f\rangle = U_m \cdots U_1 |\psi_0\rangle$. Gates are applied left to right, but compose right to left in matrix notation.

Differences from classical circuits:

- Quantum circuits are **acyclic**—no feedback loops are allowed
- No FANIN operation (joining wires), as this is not reversible
- No FANOUT operation (copying qubits), due to the no-cloning theorem
- All operations except measurement are reversible (unitary)

Example: SWAP circuit A useful quantum circuit swaps the states of two qubits using three CNOT gates:

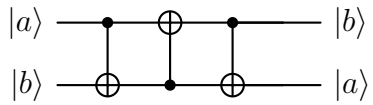


FIGURE 3. SWAP circuit using three CNOT gates to exchange the states of two qubits.

The operation can be verified: $|a, b\rangle \to |a, a\oplus b\rangle \to |a\oplus(a\oplus b), a\oplus b\rangle = |b, a\oplus b\rangle \to |b, (a \oplus b) \oplus b\rangle = |b, a\rangle$.

Multiple Qubits: For n qubits, the computational basis states are of the form $|x_1x_2 \dots x_n\rangle$, and a quantum state is specified by 2^n complex amplitudes. For $n = 500$, this number exceeds the estimated number of atoms in the Universe! This exponential scaling represents enormous potential computational power, as Nature appears to manipulate such quantities during quantum evolution.

2.4. **Pauli matrices.** The Pauli matrices are a set of three 2×2 complex Hermitian matrices that form a basis for the space of 2×2 Hermitian matrices (along with the identity matrix). They are fundamental operators in quantum mechanics and quantum computing [1, 6].

The three Pauli matrices are:

$$\sigma_x = X = \begin{pmatrix} 0 & 1 \\ 1 & 0 \end{pmatrix}, \quad \sigma_y = Y = \begin{pmatrix} 0 & -i \\ i & 0 \end{pmatrix}, \quad \sigma_z = Z = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 \\ 0 & -1 \end{pmatrix} \tag{9}$$

Key properties:

- They are Hermitian: $\sigma_i^\dagger = \sigma_i$
- They are unitary: $\sigma_i^2 = I$ (the identity matrix)
- They satisfy anticommutation relations: $\{\sigma_i, \sigma_j\} = 2\delta_{ij}I$
- They satisfy commutation relations: $[\sigma_i, \sigma_j] = 2i\epsilon_{ijk}\sigma_k$
- They are traceless: $\mathrm{Tr}(\sigma_i) = 0$

Pauli strings for multi-qubit systems: For multi-qubit systems, Pauli strings are formed by tensor products of single-qubit Pauli operators. For example, for a three-qubit system: $X \otimes Z \otimes I$, which applies X to the first qubit, Z to the second, and identity (nothing) to the third.

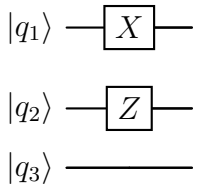


FIGURE 4. Circuit representation of the Pauli string $X \otimes Z \otimes I$. An X gate acts on qubit 1, a Z gate acts on qubit 2, and qubit 3 passes through unchanged (identity).

Worked example. Consider the 2×2 matrix $A = \left[\begin{smallmatrix} 3 & 1 \\ 1 & 1 \end{smallmatrix}\right]$ on one qubit. Computing $c_P = \frac{1}{2}\mathrm{Tr}(AP)$ for each single-qubit Pauli:

$$c_I = 2, \quad c_X = 1, \quad c_Y = 0, \quad c_Z = 1.$$

Hence $A = 2I + X + Z$, with three nonzero Pauli strings. The coefficient c_Y vanished, so VQLS requires only 3 circuits per step rather than 4.

These Pauli strings form a complete basis for decomposing arbitrary operators on n qubits. Any $2^n \times 2^n$ matrix can be written as a linear combination of 4^n Pauli strings (including identity). This decomposition is crucial for quantum algorithms.

Relevance to VQLS: In the context of VQLS, the number of Pauli terms in the decomposition of the system matrix directly impacts:

- Circuit complexity (more terms require more measurements)
- Measurement overhead (each Pauli string requires separate measurement circuits)
- Overall algorithm efficiency

Reducing the number of Pauli terms is therefore a key optimization target for VQLS implementations. The algebraic properties of the Pauli matrices and their use as an operator basis are developed in detail in Chapter 1 of [1] and Chapter 3 of [6].

2.5. **VQLS.** Variational Quantum Linear Solver (VQLS) is a hybrid quantum-classical algorithm for solving $A|\mathbf{x}\rangle = |\mathbf{b}\rangle$ on near-term devices [13]. Unlike the HHL algorithm [12]—which achieves exponential speedup in system size but requires fault-tolerant hardware far beyond current capabilities—VQLS is compatible with NISQ devices.

Analogy with machine learning. VQLS is structurally analogous to supervised machine learning: a model with trainable parameters $\boldsymbol{\theta}$ is optimized by a classical optimizer to minimize a loss function. The key difference is that the model lives on a quantum computer—the "forward pass" is a quantum circuit measurement, and expressivity comes from quantum superposition and entanglement rather than network depth [7, 8].

Machine learning	**VQLS**
Neural network	Quantum circuit
Trainable weights $\boldsymbol{\theta}$	Gate angles $\boldsymbol{\theta}$
Loss function	Cost $C(\boldsymbol{\theta})$
SGD step	Gradient step
Forward pass	Circuit evaluation

The algorithm proceeds in four steps.

(1) **Ansatz preparation.** Prepare a parameterized state $|\psi(\boldsymbol{\theta})\rangle = V(\boldsymbol{\theta})|0\rangle$ using a variational circuit. The word *ansatz* (German for "initial guess") denotes a family of circuits parameterized by angles $\boldsymbol{\theta}$; a common choice is the hardware-efficient ansatz of alternating R_y rotations and CNOTs (Figure 5).

(2) **Cost evaluation.** Measure how well $A|\psi(\boldsymbol{\theta})\rangle$ aligns with $|b\rangle$ via the cost function

$$C(\boldsymbol{\theta}) = 1 - \frac{|\langle b|A|\psi(\boldsymbol{\theta})\rangle|^2}{\langle b|b\rangle \cdot \langle \psi(\boldsymbol{\theta})|A^\dagger A|\psi(\boldsymbol{\theta})\rangle}, \tag{10}$$

which equals zero if and only if $A|\psi(\boldsymbol{\theta})\rangle \propto |b\rangle$. Each overlap $\langle b|A_l|\psi(\boldsymbol{\theta})\rangle$ in the Pauli decomposition $A = \sum_l c_l A_l$ is evaluated by one Hadamard test circuit (Figure 6).

(3) **Classical optimization.** A classical optimizer (e.g. gradient descent) updates $\boldsymbol{\theta}$ to minimize $C(\boldsymbol{\theta})$.

(4) **Solution readout.** Once $C(\boldsymbol{\theta}) \approx 0$, measuring $|\psi(\boldsymbol{\theta})\rangle$ yields the solution.

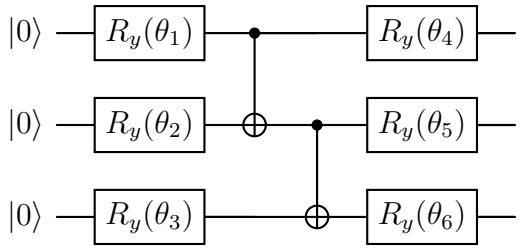


FIGURE 5. Hardware-efficient ansatz for 3 qubits. R_y gates provide trainable rotations; CNOTs provide entanglement.

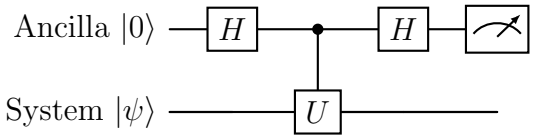


FIGURE 6. The Hadamard Test circuit used to evaluate overlaps. In VQLS, U is replaced by operations related to A and the state preparation of b.

Pauli decomposition and efficiency. The computational cost of VQLS scales with the number of Pauli terms M in the decomposition

$$A = \sum_{i=1}^{M} c_i P_i, \tag{11}$$

since each term requires a separate Hadamard test circuit. Minimizing M is therefore the central optimization target of this work.

2.6. **ODE type.** Ordinary Differential Equations (ODEs) are equations involving functions and their derivatives. Many scientific and engineering problems can be formulated as ODEs [6, 10]. A general form of an ODE is:

$$\frac{dy}{dt} = f(t, y) \tag{12}$$

where y is the unknown function and f is a known function.

Linear ODEs are particularly important and can be written as:

$$\frac{dy}{dt} + p(t)y = q(t) \tag{13}$$

When discretized, ODEs can be converted into linear systems of equations. Different discretization methods (finite difference, finite element, spectral methods) lead to different matrix structures. For quantum linear solvers, the choice of discretization method affects:

- The sparsity pattern of the resulting matrix
- The condition number of the system
- The number of Pauli terms needed for quantum representation
- The overall quantum circuit depth and complexity

Example - Second-order ODE (Poisson equation): Consider the boundary value problem:

$$-\frac{d^2u}{dx^2} = f(x), \quad u(0) = u(1) = 0 \tag{14}$$

This is the one-dimensional Poisson equation, a canonical PDE benchmark in quantum computing research [15]. Finite difference discretization with n grid points yields a tridiagonal matrix, while spectral methods using Chebyshev or Legendre polynomials produce dense but structured matrices [14]. Understanding which approach leads to fewer Pauli terms is the central question of this research.

2.7. **Spectral methods.** Spectral methods are a class of numerical techniques for solving differential equations that represent the solution as a sum of basis functions (typically orthogonal polynomials or Fourier modes). Unlike finite difference or finite element methods that provide pointwise approximations, spectral methods approximate the global behavior of the solution [6].

Common spectral bases include:

- **Fourier series:** For periodic problems on regular domains

$$u(x) = \sum_{k=-N}^{N} \hat{u}_k e^{ikx} \tag{15}$$

- **Chebyshev polynomials:** For non-periodic problems on bounded intervals $[-1, 1]$

$$u(x) = \sum_{k=0}^{N} \hat{u}_k T_k(x) \tag{16}$$

  where $T_k(x) = \cos(k \arccos(x))$
- **Legendre polynomials:** For problems on $[-1, 1]$ with natural boundary conditions

$$u(x) = \sum_{k=0}^{N} \hat{u}_k P_k(x) \tag{17}$$

The key advantages of spectral methods are:

- **Exponential convergence** for smooth solutions (spectral accuracy)
- High accuracy with fewer degrees of freedom compared to finite differences
- Dense but structured matrices with special mathematical properties
- Well-understood conditioning and stability properties

Disadvantages:

- Dense matrices (though structured)
- Less flexible for complex geometries
- Reduced accuracy for non-smooth solutions

Connection to VQLS: In the context of VQLS, spectral methods produce matrices with specific structures that may decompose into fewer Pauli terms compared to standard finite difference discretizations. The dense but structured nature of spectral matrices could potentially be exploited for more efficient Pauli decompositions, reducing quantum circuit complexity. This hypothesis is motivated by the work of Childs and Liu [14], who showed that spectral discretizations yield quantum algorithms for ODEs with complexity poly($\log d$, $\log(1/\epsilon)$) — exponentially better

in the error ϵ than finite-difference-based approaches. This hypothesis forms the core of our research question.

2.8. **Classical simulation vs. real quantum hardware.** Before the numerical results, it is important to clarify the distinction between classical simulation and execution on real quantum hardware, as all experiments in this work use simulation.

Classical (exact) simulation runs on a conventional CPU or GPU and tracks the full 2^n-dimensional state vector of the quantum system exactly, with no noise. The main limitation is memory: storing the state vector requires 2^n complex numbers, so every additional qubit doubles the memory requirement. This makes direct simulation feasible only up to roughly 50 qubits on current hardware. Our experiments use PennyLane's `lightning.qubit` simulator, which is exact but becomes expensive at $N = 16$ (4 qubits). All simulations in this work were run on the following machine:

- **CPU:** Intel Core i5-7200U, 2.50 GHz, 2 physical cores, 4 logical threads
- **RAM:** 8 GB
- **Storage:** 512 GB NVMe SSD
- **OS:** Windows 10
- **Simulator:** PennyLane `lightning.qubit` (exact state-vector)

Real quantum hardware operates on physical qubits that are inherently noisy. Sources of error include gate imperfections, decoherence (qubits losing their quantum state over time), and measurement noise. Today's NISQ devices have 50–1000 noisy qubits. Running an algorithm on real hardware is expensive and slow compared to simulation.

3. Problem statement

Standard discretization methods for differential equations, such as finite difference schemes, often produce sparse matrices when converted to quantum representations. However, these matrices may decompose into a large number of Pauli terms, which increases the measurement overhead and circuit complexity for variational quantum linear solvers.

Spectral methods offer an alternative discretization approach that produces different matrix structures—typically denser but with specific mathematical properties. The central question of this research is: **Can spectral methods reduce the number of Pauli terms needed to represent discretized differential operators in VQLS, thereby improving the efficiency of quantum linear solving algorithms?**

More specifically, we investigate:

(1) How does the Pauli term count compare between spectral methods and finite difference methods for common differential operators?
(2) Does the structured nature of spectral method matrices lead to more efficient Pauli decompositions?

Understanding this relationship could lead to significant improvements in VQLS implementations for solving differential equations, which have applications across scientific computing, fluid dynamics, quantum chemistry, and machine learning.

4. Results

This section presents four experiments that progressively characterize the Pauli structure of spectral collocation matrices. The Pauli coefficient of a string P in a matrix M is given by the trace inner product

$$c_P(M) = \frac{1}{N}\operatorname{Tr}(P^\dagger M), \tag{18}$$

so that $M = \sum_P c_P(M)\, P$. Since every non-identity Pauli string is traceless, $c_{I^{\otimes n}}(I_N) = 1$ and $c_P(I_N) = 0$ for all $P \neq I^{\otimes n}$, confirming that I_N has exactly one nonzero Pauli coefficient.

The central structural tool is the *basis-change identity*: for any polynomial basis $\{\phi_j\}$ with lower-triangular coefficient matrix C (so $\phi_j(t) = \sum_{k=0}^{j} C_{jk}\, t^k$), the collocation matrix satisfies

$$M = A_{\text{mono}}\, C^\top, \tag{19}$$

where A_{mono} is the collocation matrix for the monomial basis $\phi_j(t) = t^j$.

Derivation. The (i, j) entry of M is $L[\phi_j](t_i)$. Since L is linear and $\phi_j(t) = \sum_k C_{jk}\, t^k$,

$$M_{ij} = \sum_{k=0}^{j} C_{jk}\, L[t^k](t_i) = \sum_k (A_{\text{mono}})_{ik}\, C_{jk} = \left(A_{\text{mono}}\, C^\top\right)_{ij}. \qquad \square$$

Since C is invertible whenever the basis is non-degenerate, every non-singular collocation matrix M is reachable by an appropriate basis choice, and the Pauli count becomes a property of M alone, independent of how C is parameterized.

Computational setup. All experiments use PennyLane's `lightning.qubit` exact state-vector simulator on the machine described in Section 2.8. Timing data reported below reflects wall-clock time on that hardware.

4.1. **Experiment 1: Second-order ODE with pure second derivative.**

Setup. We consider the boundary value problem

$$u''(t) = 0, \qquad t \in [0, 1], \qquad u(0) = 0, \quad u(1) = 1, \tag{20}$$

with interior collocation requirements $u''(1/3) = 0$ and $u''(2/3) = 0$. Using a degree-3 trial function $u(t) = \sum_{j=0}^{3} a_j \phi_j(t)$, these four conditions yield a 4×4 collocation matrix ($N = 4$, two qubits).

Case A: Monomial basis. With $\phi_j(t) = t^j$, the system matrix is

$$A_{\text{mono}} = \begin{bmatrix} 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 1 & 1 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 2 & 2 \\ 0 & 0 & 2 & 4 \end{bmatrix}, \tag{21}$$

which requires all 16 two-qubit Pauli strings. Table 1 lists all 16 coefficients explicitly, confirming that none vanish.

Case B: Block-diagonal analytical construction. The operator $L[\cdot] = (\cdot)''$ annihilates every polynomial of degree ≤ 1, so the collocation rows automatically contain zeros in the first two columns for any basis choice. Exploiting this lower-left zero block, we impose three structural conditions on C to also zero the upper-right block:

(1) $C_{20} = 0$, $C_{30} = 0$, $C_{21} + C_{22} = 0$, $C_{31} + C_{32} + C_{33} = 0$ (upper-right block = 0),
(2) $B_1 = B_2$ (equal diagonal blocks, eliminating $Z \otimes \cdot$ Pauli strings),

TABLE 1. All 16 two-qubit Pauli coefficients $c_P = \frac{1}{4}\operatorname{Tr}(A_{\text{mono}}\,P)$ for Experiment 1. Every coefficient is nonzero, giving maximum VQLS overhead.

P	c_P	P	c_P	P	c_P	P	c_P
II	$+2$	XI	$+\frac{1}{4}$	YI	$+\frac{1}{4}$	ZI	-1
IX	$+\frac{5}{4}$	XX	$+\frac{1}{4}$	YX	$+\frac{1}{4}$	ZX	$-\frac{3}{4}$
IY	$-\frac{1}{4}$	XY	$-\frac{1}{4}$	YY	$+\frac{1}{4}$	ZY	$-\frac{1}{4}$
IZ	$-\frac{1}{2}$	XZ	$-\frac{1}{4}$	YZ	$-\frac{1}{4}$	ZZ	$+\frac{1}{2}$

(3) $C_{10} = C_{00}$ (repeated first-column entry, eliminating IY).

With the concrete choice $C_{00} = 2$, $C_{11} = 2$, $C_{10} = 2$, $C_{22} = 1$, $C_{21} = -1$, $C_{33} = 1$, $C_{32} = 0$, $C_{31} = -1$, the collocation matrix becomes

$$A = \begin{bmatrix} 2 & 2 & 0 & 0 \\ 2 & 4 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 2 & 2 \\ 0 & 0 & 2 & 4 \end{bmatrix}, \tag{22}$$

and its (normalized) Pauli decomposition is

$$\frac{A}{\|A\|} \approx 0.4009\,II + 0.2673\,IX - 0.1336\,IZ, \tag{23}$$

an **81% reduction** from 16 to 3 Pauli strings.

Why three is the minimum in the block-diagonal family. With a 2×2 block $B = \left[\begin{smallmatrix} a & a \\ a & c \end{smallmatrix}\right]$, the surviving Pauli coefficients are $\alpha = (a + c)/2$, $\beta = a$, $\gamma = (a - c)/2$. Eliminating IZ would require $a = c$, making $\det(B) = 0$; the system would have no unique solution. Hence three Pauli strings is the minimum within the block-diagonal family.

Global LP.. By the basis-change identity, minimizing $\sum_P |c_P(M)|$ over all entries of M, subject to $\operatorname{Tr}(M) = 4$, is a linear program. The HiGHS simplex solver finds the global optimum $M^* = I_4$, with a single Pauli string ($c_{II} = 1$, all others zero) — a **94% reduction** from Case A. The corresponding dual basis is

$$\begin{aligned} \phi_0(t) &= 1 - t, \\ \phi_1(t) &= t, \\ \phi_2(t) &= -\tfrac{1}{2}t + t^2 - \tfrac{1}{2}t^3, \\ \phi_3(t) &= -\tfrac{1}{2}t^2 + \tfrac{1}{2}t^3, \end{aligned}$$

with $\det C = \frac{1}{4} \neq 0$. Solving $I_4\,\mathbf{a} = \mathbf{b}$ gives $\mathbf{a} = \mathbf{b} = [0, 1, 0, 0]^\top$, recovering the exact solution $u(t) = t$.

TABLE 2. Pauli string counts for Experiment 1 ($N = 4$, two qubits, $u'' = 0$).

Basis	Pauli strings	Reduction
Case A (monomial)	16/16	—
Case B (block-diagonal, monic)	3/16	81%
LP global optimum ($M^* = I_4$)	1/16	94%

4.2. **Experiment 2: ODE with lower-order terms.**

Setup. We now consider the full second-order problem

$$u''(t) + u'(t) + u(t) = t^2 + 3t + 3, \qquad t \in [-1, 1], \qquad u(-1) = 0, \quad u(1) = 2, \tag{24}$$

with collocation requirements $L[u](\pm 1/3) = f(\pm 1/3)$. The exact solution is $u(t) = t^2 + t$.

Obstruction to block-diagonal structure. Unlike Experiment 1, the identity term in $L[\cdot] = (\cdot)'' + (\cdot)' + (\cdot)$ gives $L[\phi_0] = C_{00} \neq 0$ and couples the collocation rows to the lower-degree basis functions. Forcing the lower-left 2×2 block to zero requires $C_{00} = 0$, $C_{11} = 0$, $C_{10} = 0$, which degenerates the basis. The block-diagonal strategy from Experiment 1 is *structurally impossible* when the differential operator contains lower-order terms.

Global LP.. Despite this obstruction, the LP over all entries of M is unaffected: it finds the same global optimum $M^* = I_4$, with a single Pauli string. The corresponding dual basis has operator-dependent coefficients (e.g. $\phi_0(t) \approx 0.4525 - 0.5792t + 0.0475t^2 + 0.0792t^3$), but the quantum representation is identical to Experiment 1. Solving $I_4\,\mathbf{a} = \mathbf{b}$ recovers the exact solution $u(t) = t^2 + t$ at all test points.

Key implication. The Pauli count of the collocation matrix is *independent of the differential operator*. For any second-order ODE on any domain with two boundary conditions and two interior collocation points, the globally optimal collocation matrix is $M^* = I_4$, achieved by a suitably chosen operator-dependent dual basis.

TABLE 3. Pauli string counts for Experiment 2 ($N = 4$, two qubits, $u'' + u' + u = f$).

Basis	Pauli strings	Reduction
Case A (monomial)	16/16	—
LP global optimum ($M^* = I_4$)	1/16	94%

4.3. **Experiment 3: Scaling to three qubits.**

Setup. We return to the Experiment 2 ODE but scale to $N = 8$ (three qubits): two boundary rows and **six** interior collocation rows at equidistant points $t_k = -1 + k/7$ for $k = 1, \ldots, 6$, with a degree-7 polynomial trial function.

Case A.. The monomial collocation matrix A_{mono} is 8×8 with $\det A_{\text{mono}} \approx 1003.4$, non-singular. It decomposes into all $4^3 = \mathbf{64}$ three-qubit Pauli strings. Adding more collocation points does not improve the Pauli structure—it only makes it exponentially worse.

Global LP.. The LP over all 64 entries of M (with $\mathrm{Tr}(M) = 8$) again finds $M^* = I_8$, with a single Pauli string $c_{III} = 1$ — a **98.4% reduction**. The dual basis $\phi_0, \ldots, \phi_7$ is verified numerically at five test points, recovering $u(t) = t^2 + t$ to machine precision.

Universal pattern. Across all three experiments the LP always returns $M^* = I_N$, as shown in Table 4.

TABLE 4. The global LP always finds $M^* = I_N$ across all experiments, collapsing to a single Pauli string.

Experiment	N	Qubits	Case A	LP optimum
1	4	2	16/16	1/16
2	4	2	16/16	1/16
3	8	3	64/64	1/64

Why $M^* = I_N$ is always optimal. The identity matrix I_N concentrates all its Pauli weight into the identity string $I^{\otimes n}$. Formally, $c_{I\cdots I}(I_N) = 1$ and $c_P(I_N) = \mathrm{Tr}(P)/N = 0$ for all non-identity P, since every non-identity Pauli string is traceless. No other matrix achieves fewer Pauli strings subject to $\mathrm{Tr}(M) = N$.
VQLS implication. With $M^* = I_N$, the VQLS system reduces to $I\,|\psi\rangle = |b\rangle$, which is trivially solved by $|\psi\rangle = |b\rangle$. This is classically trivial and does not provide a quantum advantage. The open question is whether there exists a non-trivial class of operators for which the LP optimum is greater than 1 but still polynomially small in n—the regime where VQLS could offer a genuine speedup.

4.4. **Experiment 4: Monic LP as a middle ground.**

Motivation. Experiments 1–3 identified two extreme strategies: Case A (all 4^n Pauli strings, no optimization) and the global LP (1 Pauli string, classically trivial). This raises the question: *can we reduce the Pauli count substantially while keeping the quantum system non-trivial?*
Monic LP formulation. We restrict C to be *lower-triangular with unit diagonal* ($C_{jj} = 1$, $C_{jk} = 0$ for $k > j$, C_{jk} free for $k < j$). This "monic" restriction fixes ϕ_j to be a degree-j polynomial with leading coefficient 1. Writing $C = I + \Delta$ where Δ is strictly lower-triangular, the collocation matrix becomes $M = A_{\mathrm{mono}}(I + \Delta)^\top$, which is affine in the $\frac{N(N-1)}{2}$ free entries of Δ. The resulting LP is

$$\min_{\mathbf{x},\mathbf{t}} \sum_P t_P \qquad \text{s.t.} \quad J\mathbf{x} + \mathbf{c}^0 \le \mathbf{t},\ -J\mathbf{x} - \mathbf{c}^0 \le \mathbf{t},\ \mathbf{t} \ge 0, \tag{25}$$

where $\mathbf{c}^0$ are the Case A Pauli coefficients and J is the Jacobian of c_P with respect to Δ. The unit-diagonal constraint ensures C is always invertible, so no normalization constraint ($\mathrm{Tr}(M) = N$) is needed.
Results. Table 5 summarizes the Pauli counts and VQLS Hadamard-test overhead across all experiments.

TABLE 5. Pauli strings and Hadamard tests per VQLS step (HT/step $= L^2(n+1)$) for each experiment and basis choice.

Experiment	N	n	Case A	Monic LP	Global LP
Exp. 1: $u'' = 0$ on $[0,1]$	4	2	16/16	**6/16**	1/16
Exp. 2: $u'' + u' + u = f$ on $[-1,1]$	4	2	16/16	**10/16**	1/16
Exp. 3: $u'' + u' + u = f$ on $[-1,1]$ (3 qubits)	8	3	64/64	**36/64**	1/64
Exp. 1 HT/step			768	**108**	3
Exp. 2 HT/step			768	**300**	3
Exp. 3 HT/step			16,384	**5,184**	4

For Experiment 1, the monic LP returns the basis coefficient matrix

$$C^* = \begin{bmatrix} 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ \frac{1}{2} & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & -1 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & \frac{1}{4} & -\frac{5}{4} & 1 \end{bmatrix}, \tag{26}$$

yielding six nonzero Pauli strings $\{II, IX, IY, ZI, ZY, ZZ\}$.

Why the monic LP cannot recover the 3-Pauli Case B solution. The analytical block-diagonal strategy in Experiment 1 uses a non-unit diagonal (e.g. $C_{00} = C_{11} = 2$). Normalizing to a unit diagonal changes the resulting M and produces six nonzero Pauli strings—identical to the monic LP optimum. The 3-Pauli solution therefore lies outside the monic family; it requires non-unit diagonal scaling.

VQLS convergence. VQLS was run with a hardware-efficient R_Y-CNOT ansatz for 25 gradient steps (3 trials per configuration, seeds 0–2). For $N = 4$ (Experiment 2 ODE), timing was measured on the machine described above. Table 6 reports the LP preprocessing time, VQLS wall-clock time per 25 steps, and final cost.

TABLE 6. VQLS timing and convergence results for $N = 4$ (Experiment 2 ODE, classical simulation, 25 steps, 3 trials). LP times are negligible ($\lesssim 0.13$ s). VQLS wall-clock time scales with HT/step: the monomial basis requires 237× more simulation time than the full LP.

Basis	Paulis	HT/step	VQLS time (s)	Cost @ 25 steps
Monomial (Case A)	16	768	637 ± 115	0.185 ± 0.000
Monic LP	10	300	220 ± 15	0.294 ± 0.000
Full LP	1	3	2.7 ± 0.7	0.025 ± 0.000

The LP preprocessing step (solving for the optimal basis) takes 0.13 s for the monic LP and 0.11 s for the full LP—negligible compared to VQLS runtime. VQLS wall-clock time scales closely with HT/step: the monic LP is 2.9× faster than Case A, and the full LP is 237× faster. Despite this, final cost values do not monotonically improve: the cost plateaus at 0.025–0.29 for all methods. This is an *ansatz limitation*: the single-layer R_Y circuit with n parameters cannot express the exact solution state $|b\rangle$ for general b. Pauli overhead reduction speeds up each gradient step but does not expand ansatz expressivity.

Scaling across system sizes. Table 7 summarizes wall-clock time per gradient step across $N = 4, 8, 16$. Cost scales as $\sim L^2 n \sim N^4 \log N$: every doubling of N multiplies Case A simulation time by approximately 16×. The monic LP speedup is ≈13× at $N = 4$ and ≈3.2× at $N = 8$; the projected $N = 16$ ratio is similar. Direct Case A simulation at $N = 16$ (256 Paulis, 4 qubits) is not feasible on this CPU.

TABLE 7. Wall-clock time per VQLS gradient step on the CPU simulator (`lightning.qubit`, Intel i5-7200U) across system sizes. $N = 16$ values marked with $*$ are extrapolated from the $N^4 \log N$ scaling law; Case A at $N = 16$ is not feasible to run directly.

N	n	Case A (Monomial)		Monic LP		Global LP (I_N)	
		Paulis	s/step	Paulis	s/step	Paulis	s/step
4	2	16	17.2	6	1.3	1	0.05
8	3	64	∼240	36	∼75	1	0.11
16	4	256	>3000*	112	∼920*	1	∼0.3

Non-triviality. The monic LP satisfies $M^* \neq I_N$, so the VQLS system $M^* |\psi\rangle = |b\rangle$ is not classically trivial. Unlike the global LP, the monic LP does not collapse the quantum problem into a state-preparation task.

Structural simplicity. The monic LP is modestly simpler than the global LP: it has $\frac{N(N-1)}{2}$ free variables (vs. N^2 for the global LP) and requires no normalization constraint. Both are $O(N^2)$-variable LPs solved in milliseconds by HiGHS.

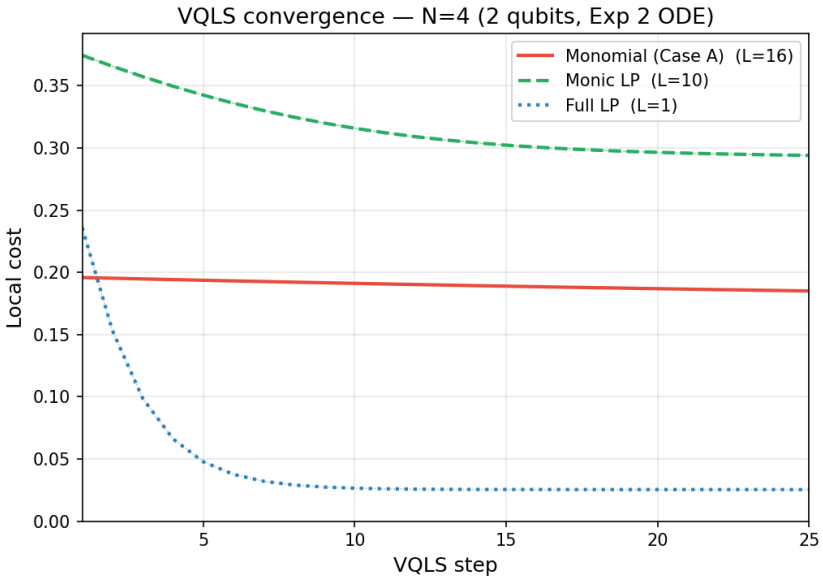


FIGURE 7. VQLS convergence curves for $N = 4$ (2 qubits) on the Experiment 2 ODE, comparing monomial (Case A), monic LP, and full LP bases over 25 gradient steps. The full LP converges fastest due to minimal Hadamard-test overhead; the monic LP is intermediate. All three plateau due to the expressivity limit of the single-layer ansatz.

5. Conclusion

This paper studied whether the choice of polynomial basis in spectral collocation methods can reduce the Pauli term count of system matrices used in Variational Quantum Linear Solvers (VQLS). Through four experiments on second-order boundary value problems, we established the following findings.

The monomial basis is the worst case. The standard monomial (Case A) basis saturates all 4^n available Pauli strings for any n-qubit collocation problem, regardless of the differential operator. This is the natural starting point but also the most expensive for VQLS.

A basis-change identity reduces Pauli minimization to a linear program. Any non-singular collocation matrix is reachable by an appropriate polynomial basis, so minimizing Pauli count over all basis choices is equivalent to a linear program over the collocation matrix M.

The global LP always finds $M^* = I_N$. The identity matrix is the unique LP optimum subject to $\mathrm{Tr}(M) = N$, achieving a single Pauli string regardless of the operator, domain, or boundary conditions. This represents a 94–98% reduction in Pauli terms. However, $M^* = I_N$ collapses the quantum system to $I\,|\psi\rangle = |b\rangle$, which is classically trivial and offers no quantum advantage.

The monic LP provides a principled middle ground. By restricting the basis coefficient matrix to be lower-triangular with unit diagonal, the monic LP reduces Hadamard-test overhead by factors of 3–7× across the three experimental settings while preserving a non-trivial quantum system ($M^* \neq I_N$). It is structurally simpler than the global LP (no normalization constraint) and naturally parameterized in terms of the polynomial basis.

Ansatz expressivity is the binding bottleneck at small scales. In the VQLS experiments, convergence quality is determined by the expressivity of the single-layer R_Y ansatz, not by Pauli overhead. At $N = 4, 8$, any classical method trivially solves the problem, so no VQLS formulation at this scale offers a quantum advantage. The Pauli reductions identified here become meaningful only at much larger N, where quantum linear solvers are hypothesized to offer exponential advantages.

Open problems. The most important open question is whether there exists a non-trivial class of ODEs or boundary conditions for which the LP Pauli optimum is greater than 1 but still polynomially small in the number of qubits. Such a class would be a natural candidate for genuine near-term quantum advantage in differential equation solving. Several concrete directions remain open:

- **2D and 3D PDEs.** In multiple spatial dimensions the collocation matrix factors as a Kronecker product of 1D matrices. A joint basis-change LP over the shared factor $B^\top$ may simultaneously reduce Paulis across all dimensions—the main open algorithmic question.
- **Node optimization.** All experiments here used equidistant interior collocation nodes. Chebyshev or Legendre nodes minimize the Lebesgue constant and may produce more structured matrices with fewer nonzero Pauli coefficients.
- **Deeper ansatz.** The expressibility plateau observed in all experiments is a separate bottleneck from Pauli overhead. Deeper R_Y-CNOT layers or problem-adapted ansatz designs are needed to close the gap between the LP-reduced system and a fully converged VQLS solution.
- **Noise analysis on real hardware.** Classical simulation provides exact, noiseless results. Running these experiments on an actual NISQ device would reveal how gate errors and decoherence interact with Pauli-overhead reduction.

The key structural insight is that *in one spatial dimension, reducing the Pauli count eventually removes the quantum difficulty entirely*—the global LP collapses to the classically trivial identity system. Multi-dimensional PDEs are the natural next target, where the Kronecker structure may prevent total collapse and genuine quantum advantage could survive.

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Appendix A. Code

All code is publicly available at `https://github.com/proxy-pylon/math-499`. The repository contains the following main modules:

- `collocation.py`: builds collocation matrices for general second-order operators on arbitrary domains, implements the global LP (`minimize_pauli_l1`) and monic LP (`minimize_pauli_l1_monic`) using the HiGHS simplex solver, and counts Pauli strings via trace inner products.
- `vqls.py`: implements VQLS with a hardware-efficient R_Y-CNOT ansatz using PennyLane, including the local cost function and gradient-based optimization.
- `experiment_scaling.py`: orchestrates the scaling experiments across $N = 4, 8, 16$, collects VQLS timing and convergence data, and generates the convergence plots.

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Department of Mathematics, Nazarbayev University